

# Housing Affordability and Real Estate Market in Canada

## ECON 204 – Contemporary Economic Issues

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- Housing affordability has become one of the most pressing economic challenges in Canada.
- Housing costs directly shape daily living standards, long-term financial security, and wealth accumulation.
- Housing is the largest single expenditure for most households and the dominant asset on household balance sheets.
- Changes in affordability affect inequality, intergenerational mobility, and financial stability.
- Since the mid-2000s, and especially after the COVID-19 pandemic, prices and rents rose faster than incomes in many regions.
- After 2022, higher interest rates slowed price growth, but affordability remained strained due to higher borrowing costs and tighter rental markets.

# What Is Housing Affordability?

## Key Concept

Housing affordability refers to the ability of households to obtain adequate housing without excessive financial strain, given their income, wealth, and access to credit.

- Affordability is a relationship, not a price level.
- High prices do not automatically imply unaffordability if incomes are high or financing costs are low.
- Moderate prices can be unaffordable if incomes are low or credit conditions are tight.

- A widely used indicator is the price-to-income ratio:

$$PTI = \frac{\text{House Price}}{\text{Annual Household Income}}.$$

- Historically, PTI ratios around 3–4 were common in many Canadian cities.
- Ratios above 7–8 reflect a breakdown in the traditional link between incomes and housing prices.

## Worked Numerical Example: Price-to-Income Ratio

### Worked Numerical Example

Suppose the median house price in a Canadian city is \$900,000 and the median household income is \$110,000. The price-to-income ratio is:

$$PTI = \frac{900,000}{110,000} \approx 8.18.$$

This implies that the price of a typical home is more than eight times annual household income, a level widely regarded as severely unaffordable.

- Many households experience affordability through monthly cash flow rather than prices.
- Payment-based measures focus on the shelter-cost-to-income ratio:

$$\text{Shelter Burden} = \frac{\text{Monthly Housing Costs}}{\text{Monthly Income}}.$$

- This measure is especially important in Canada, where mortgage payments can change significantly at renewal.

## Worked Numerical Example: Shelter Burden

### Worked Numerical Example

A household earns \$6,000 per month after tax. If mortgage payments, property taxes, and utilities sum to \$2,700 per month, the shelter burden is:

$$\frac{2,700}{6,000} = 45\%.$$

This household is housing-cost burdened even if the home value is high.

# Affordability Metrics: Summary Table

| Metric                | Definition                                                                   | Economic Interpretation                                                                |
|-----------------------|------------------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Price-to-income (PTI) | ratio $PTI = \frac{\text{House Price}}{\text{Annual Household Income}}$      | Captures the gap between prices and incomes; highlights long-run affordability stress. |
| Shelter burden        | $\text{Burden} = \frac{\text{Monthly Housing Costs}}{\text{Monthly Income}}$ | Captures cash-flow pressure; central when borrowing costs reset at mortgage renewal.   |



# Housing as a Consumption Good and an Asset

- Housing plays two distinct economic roles at the same time.
- First, housing is a consumption good: households consume housing services (shelter, space, safety, location).
- If housing were only a consumption good, prices would be closely tied to fundamentals such as rents and incomes.
- Second, housing is also a store of wealth and an investment asset.
- Expectations about future house prices influence demand, similar to how expected stock returns influence stock demand.

# Why Prices Can Diverge from Rents or Incomes

- Because housing is both consumption and investment, demand depends on:
  - current ability to pay for shelter services, and
  - expected future returns (expected appreciation).
- When expected appreciation is high, the perceived long-run cost of ownership falls.
- Buyers may stretch financially today because they expect capital gains tomorrow.
- As a result, housing prices can diverge from fundamentals such as rents or incomes.

## Concrete Example: Expectations and Divergence

- Suppose two cities have identical rents and incomes.
- In City A, households expect house prices to be stable.
- In City B, households expect prices to rise by 5 percent per year.
- Demand for ownership will be higher in City B because buyers expect capital gains.
- House prices in City B will be higher and the price-to-rent ratio will be larger, even if rental fundamentals are identical.

# Demand-Side Drivers of Housing Affordability in Canada

- Demand-side drivers increase households' willingness and ability to pay for housing at any given price.
- In Canada, demand forces have been unusually strong and persistent.
- The impact on affordability depends critically on the responsiveness of housing supply.
- When supply adjusts slowly, demand increases show up mainly as higher prices and rents rather than more housing.

# Population Growth and Household Formation

- Rapid population growth is a major driver (immigration, temporary residents, international students, natural increase).
- Population growth raises housing demand immediately because new households need housing upon arrival.
- Affordability deteriorates when household formation exceeds housing completions.
- Effects are pronounced in large metropolitan areas where inflows are concentrated.

# Income Growth and Income Dispersion

- Affordability depends on average income growth and the distribution of income.
- Higher-income households often have greater bidding power in desirable locations.
- Housing prices can reflect the purchasing power of the upper part of the income distribution rather than the median household.
- This can generate widespread affordability challenges even when aggregate income indicators appear strong.

- Housing affordability depends on income and how much households can borrow.
- Lower interest rates increase the mortgage size that can be serviced at a given payment, raising effective demand.
- Long periods of low rates increased borrowing capacity and allowed households to bid up prices.
- Rate increases reduce borrowing capacity, but can worsen affordability in the short run through renewal payment increases and tighter rental markets.

# Expectations of Future House Prices

- When households expect prices to rise, ownership becomes more attractive as both shelter and investment.
- Expected appreciation reduces the perceived long-run cost of ownership.
- This can generate self-reinforcing demand: rising prices attract buyers, which pushes prices higher.
- These dynamics can occur even among forward-looking and risk-aware households.



# Demographic and Life-Cycle Factors

- Life-cycle household formation patterns affect housing demand.
- Large cohorts entering prime home-buying ages increase demand for ownership housing.
- Longer life expectancy and aging in place reduce turnover in the existing housing stock.
- Affordability constraints delay homeownership for younger households, increasing rental demand and raising rents.

# Urban Concentration and Location Preferences

- Housing demand is increasingly concentrated in large urban centres where jobs and amenities cluster.
- Even if national supply expands, affordability can deteriorate locally when demand is spatially concentrated and supply responses are slow.
- Spillovers occur as households priced out of central cities relocate outward, transmitting demand pressure across regions.

# Supply Constraints and Price Dynamics

- Supply constraints explain why affordability deteriorates sharply when demand increases.
- Housing supply is slow to adjust because housing is durable, land-intensive, and heavily regulated.
- In the short run, supply is relatively fixed, so prices rise to clear the market when demand increases.
- Supply elasticity determines whether adjustment occurs through quantities (construction) or prices.

# Housing Supply Elasticity

- Housing supply elasticity measures how responsive housing construction is to changes in prices.
- In elastic markets: higher prices lead to substantial increases in construction.
- In inelastic markets: higher prices generate little additional construction; adjustment occurs mostly through prices.
- Evidence indicates supply is relatively inelastic in many large Canadian metropolitan areas.

- Zoning rules that limit density, building heights, or reserve areas for single-family housing constrain construction.
- Lengthy approval processes and permitting uncertainty discourage rapid supply expansion.
- Developer delays reduce the ability to respond quickly to rising prices, reinforcing affordability pressures.

# Geographic Constraints and Construction Capacity

- Geography can limit developable land (coastlines, mountains, protected land).
- Expanding supply may require costly redevelopment or higher density, often facing political resistance.
- Construction capacity constraints (labour shortages, materials costs, infrastructure limits) can slow the pace of building.
- These constraints become binding during rapid demand growth.

# Persistence and Distributional Effects

- When supply responds slowly, prices do not quickly revert after a demand shock dissipates.
- Elevated prices can become embedded if households and investors expect constraints to persist.
- Scarcity rations access through prices: higher-income households absorb increases more easily.
- Lower- and middle-income households shift to smaller dwellings, longer commutes, or renting, increasing inequality and spatial segregation.

# Canadian Housing Market Case Studies

- Housing markets in Canada are highly regional; national averages conceal local differences.
- Comparing regions shows how shared forces (population growth, rates, income dynamics) interact with local supply elasticity and policy environments.
- There is no single Canadian housing market; there are distinct local markets responding to common pressures.



# Vancouver: Inelastic Supply and Price Capitalization

- Strong demand supported by high incomes, amenities, and sustained population growth.
- Supply constrained by geography (mountains and ocean), limited developable land, and restrictive land-use regulation.
- With inelastic supply, even small demand shocks can generate large price increases.
- Prices can become disconnected from local incomes due to investment demand and expectations of appreciation.

# Toronto and the Greater Golden Horseshoe: Growth Outpacing the Pipeline

- Rapid population growth driven by immigration and employment opportunities.
- Less severe geographic constraints than Vancouver, but supply limited by zoning, infrastructure coordination, and lengthy approvals.
- Large projects take years from approval to completion; starts may be strong while completions lag.
- Affordability can deteriorate if demand growth exceeds delivery, even when construction expands.

# Montreal: From Relative Affordability to Tightening Markets

- Historically relatively affordable, especially in rentals, due to large rental stock and slower population growth.
- Recent pressures intensified with faster population growth and prolonged low rates.
- Higher rates after 2022 moderated price growth, but affordability challenges persisted via stronger rental demand and higher renewal payments.
- Relative affordability advantages are not permanent; conditions can shift quickly when supply is slow.

# Prairie Cities: Elastic Supply with Emerging Pressures

- Calgary and Edmonton historically more affordable due to more elastic supply (abundant land, fewer restrictions, faster permitting).
- Recently, strong migration and population growth increased demand sharply.
- Supply responded more than in constrained markets, but not enough to prevent rising prices and rents.
- Even in relatively elastic markets, affordability can deteriorate when demand accelerates rapidly.

- Smaller markets historically had modest price growth.
- Pandemic-era remote work, migration, and demographic shifts raised demand.
- Supply was slow to adjust due to limited construction capacity and smaller pipelines.
- Lower initial price levels made percentage price increases appear especially large.

# Case Studies: Comparison Table

| Region          | Core Demand Forces                                       | Key Supply Constraints                      | Affordability Dynamics                                                 |
|-----------------|----------------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------|------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Vancouver       | Amenities, incomes, population growth, investment demand | Geography + restrictive density constraints | Small demand shocks lead to large price increases; persistent high PTI |
| Toronto GGH     | Immigration + jobs, sustained inflows                    | Approvals, zoning, long project timelines   | Pipeline lags demand; prices and rents remain under pressure           |
| Montreal        | Accelerating demand + low-rate legacy                    | Slow adjustment in supply; tighter rentals  | Shift from relative affordability to strained markets                  |
| Prairie Cities  | Migration-driven demand increases                        | Capacity constraints when demand surges     | More quantity response, but still rising prices/rents recently         |
| Atlantic Canada | Remote-work and migration shocks                         | Limited construction capacity               | Outsized percentage price increases in smaller markets                 |

# Monetary Policy and Mortgage Renewal

- Monetary policy affects housing affordability through several channels.
- The mortgage renewal channel is particularly important in Canada.
- This channel helps explain why affordability can worsen even if house prices stop rising or fall.
- Canadian mortgages expose households to interest rate risk at renewal rather than locking costs for the full loan life.

- Many mortgages have fixed rates for short terms (commonly five years), while amortizations are much longer (often 25 or 30 years).
- Households periodically renew at prevailing market rates.
- Rate hikes do not hit all borrowers immediately; impacts arrive as mortgages renew.
- Renewal at higher rates can raise monthly payments substantially even if balances declined modestly.



# Price Channel vs. Payment Channel

- Higher rates reduce borrowing capacity for new buyers, slowing demand and price growth (price channel).
- For existing borrowers, higher rates raise required payments at renewal (payment channel).
- Prices and affordability can move in opposite directions:
  - prices stabilize or decline, while
  - affordability worsens as monthly payments rise.

# Distributional Consequences of Renewal Risk

- Recently purchased households and highly leveraged borrowers are more exposed to renewal risk.
- These households tend to be younger and more vulnerable to payment increases.
- Long-time homeowners with small balances or no mortgage are largely insulated.
- Monetary tightening can redistribute stress and exacerbate intergenerational inequality.

- Higher interest rates raise financing costs for landlords.
- In tight rental markets, some higher costs may pass through into higher rents.
- Higher rates can delay new construction, constraining future rental supply and reinforcing rent pressure.
- Effects unfold with long and uneven lags; stress can peak well after a tightening cycle begins.

# International Housing Affordability Crises

- The international housing affordability crisis refers to widespread and simultaneous deterioration in affordability across many advanced economies over the past two decades.
- Affordability problems have emerged across countries with different institutions and policy frameworks.
- This suggests common economic forces rather than isolated national policy failures.
- A core feature is divergence: housing costs rise faster than household incomes.

# A Common Global Pattern

- Demand concentrates in major urban centres with jobs and amenities.
- Supply responds slowly due to zoning, regulation, infrastructure limits, and construction bottlenecks.
- Long periods of low interest rates increased borrowing capacity and raised asset prices.
- With inelastic supply, demand increases translate mainly into higher prices rather than more housing.

# The United States: Regional Divergence

- In some cities, supply is highly constrained by zoning, community opposition, and lengthy approvals.
- In these markets, rising demand leads mainly to higher prices and severe affordability pressure.
- In more flexible markets, price increases have been smaller.
- The contrast highlights the central role of supply elasticity.

# United Kingdom: Rental Affordability and Generational Inequality

- Rising house prices push more younger households into renting.
- Rental demand rises faster than rental supply, raising rents sharply in major areas.
- Renters can face higher effective inflation than homeowners.
- The result is intensified generational inequality in housing cost burdens.

# Australia and New Zealand: Extreme Price-to-Income Ratios

- Cities reach exceptionally high price-to-income ratios.
- Drivers include strong population growth, urban concentration, constrained supply, and financial conditions that favor housing as an investment asset.
- These cases show that affordability crises can persist even in high-income countries with stable institutions.



## Europe: Different Institutions, Similar Outcomes

- European countries vary in tenure systems, yet affordability problems have emerged across many cities.
- In major metropolitan areas, limited supply combined with strong demand pushed prices and rents above income growth.
- Convergence across different systems suggests interaction of global demand pressures with local supply constraints.

# Why Affordability Has Become Structural

- The current episode is often described as structural rather than purely cyclical.
- Affordability worsened persistently over time.
- Younger and lower-income households are increasingly excluded from homeownership.
- Housing costs reshape labour mobility, family formation, and inequality.
- In many cases, affordability does not return to pre-boom levels even after markets cool.

- Canada fits the international pattern: strong demand concentrated in large cities, constrained supply, and financial channels amplifying price movements.
- An international lens clarifies that the issue is broader than a single-country policy failure.

- Housing affordability in Canada reflects interaction of strong demand growth, constrained supply, and powerful financial channels.
- Prices, rents, and payments respond differently to economic shocks.
- Affordability can deteriorate even when some indicators improve.
- Understanding these mechanisms is essential for evaluating policy responses and interpreting housing market developments in Canada and abroad.